The Building Blocks of Global Governance:
A Comparative Exploration with Lessons for AI

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Note for students: This is a chapter that I wrote for a Microsoft publication, Global Governance: Goals and Lessons for AI. The publication included case studies of five different IOs:

- ***The Intergovernmental Panel on Climate Change (IPCC)*** *- a UN body that convenes experts to assess the science related to climate change*
- ***The International Civil Aviation Organization (ICAO)*** *– an UN agency that helps countries develop and maintain shared standards and protocols related to aviation safety*
- ***The Financial Action Task Force (FATF)*** *– an informal intergovernmental body of 40 economies that sets standards and monitors compliance with international rules designed to combat terrorist financing and money laundering*
- ***The International Atomic Energy Agency (IAEA)*** *– an intergovernmental organization designed to promote the peaceful exchange of nuclear technology and also to monitor and prevent the proliferation of nuclear weapons*
- ***CERN*** *– a European center for scientific research that brings together scientists from all over the globe to work together on advanced projects like the creation of matter*

You do not need to be familiar with these organizations to read this document; however, the basic background provided above may be helpful.

Introduction

The modern era is characterized by unprecedented levels of cooperation. International organizations (IOs) organize state behavior across numerous issue areas, covering everything from high-stakes security concerns like nuclear proliferation and terrorism to complex, technocratic topics like sanitation and food safety. Whereas global governance was once rare and known primarily for idealistic failures like the League of Nations, today more than 300 formal and 150 informal bodies promote cooperation across states. These IOs vary in mandate, membership, and authority, yet each is part of the complex architecture that governs life in the 21st century.

How did we get to this highly institutionalized world? And what lessons do existing IOs hold for incipient AI governance? This chapter links past and present with an eye to the future. Section 1 begins by recounting the origin story of modern global governance. Despite its cooperative orientation, it was war, not peace, that gave birth to the United Nations and many other well-known IOs. The political tensions of the Cold War spawned additional growth, and the number of treaty-based-IOs more than doubled during this period. Over the last thirty years, however, cooperation has shifted toward more informal bodies, as states seek flexible and adaptive solutions to new types of challenges. As a result of both trends, cooperation has fragmented – even a single-issue area might have ten or more IOs that make relevant policy.

The five IOs examined in this report are best understood within the broader context of this historical trajectory. Each IO is a product of a historical moment when state goals and geopolitical

interests aligned to emphasize a specific mandate, structure, and operations. The objectives and operations of each IO thus offer insights into possible roles for future AI regimes.

To compare and contrast these objectives, Section 2 draws on political scientist Robert Keohane's foundational insights into institutionalized cooperation and applies these arguments to the IOs included in this report. First, IOs facilitate the flow of information across cooperating states. They create shared understanding of problems (the IPCC), develop standards for acceptable behavior (financial governance, the IAEA, and ICAO), and monitor state conformity with the standards (financial governance, the IAEA, and ICAO). Second, IOs intensify the consequences for rule breaking through reputational mechanisms (ICAO, financial governance), external enforcement (ICAO, FATF), and even occasionally institutionalized enforcement (the IAEA nuclear safeguards). Third, IOs lower the "costs of doing business" so that states and non-state actors can exchange information and develop expertise (IPCC, CERN), provide technical assistance (financial governance, ICAO), and even transfer technologies across borders (IAEA). Comparing the cases along these key dimensions reveals both variation and commonalities across governance models.

Section 3 extracts policy lessons from the comparative case analysis. The cases illustrate the importance of strong leadership, particularly from actors with the technical expertise to develop standards and the market power to enforce them. Historically, this leadership has come most often from the United States. The cases also highlight the importance of defining a clear purpose for a new IO. Not all objectives can be accomplished at once, and states may need to make tradeoffs between different goals. Additional lessons highlight how first steps at cooperation may be reinforced over time, as IOs evolve and often strengthen through external processes. Overall, the cases highlight the urgent need to identify common objectives and initiate preliminary governance; much of the fine-grained details will logically follow.

Global Governance from 1945 to Today

Modern global governance has its roots in war and conflict. Amid the pronounced desperation and fear of the early World War II period, allied countries became convinced that the only hope for establishing a lasting peace lay in the creation of an international organization that would unite countries. In August 1941, US President Franklin D. Roosevelt and UK Prime Minister Winston Churchill laid the foundation for such a body, forging an agreement that affirmed common principles like respect for sovereignty, trade openness, and abandonment of the use of force.[1] Five months later, twenty-six countries, all at war with the Axis powers, subscribed to these common principles in the "Declaration by United Nations." This was the first time that the term "United Nations" was used, and it stipulated a clear vision for a post-war world.

The next three years saw intense negotiations over the structure and membership of such an institution, with the US taking a leadership role. Roosevelt wanted to build a strong post-war order where political disputes could be routed through international institutions rather than spilling into military battles. Given the League of Nations' failure to prevent the outbreak of war, Roosevelt was convinced that any new institution needed the power to enforce its decisions and that US involvement was essential. He promoted a framework where core countries like the United States, the Soviet Union, the United Kingdom, and China would provide institutional leadership, and

worked to find compromises that would balance the need for widespread participation with the protection of US interests.[2] The UN's eventual bicameral structure, where enforcement power resides within the 15-member Security Council but budgetary power lies with the inclusive General Assembly, reflects this balance.

The post-war period saw tremendous growth in global governance. The creation of the United Nations in 1945 launched a new trend where states sought to institutionalize cooperation. In the economic arena, organizations like the World Bank and the International Monetary Fund became key to development and monetary efforts. Security cooperation expanded through regional organizations like the North Atlantic Treaty Organization and oversight bodies like the International Atomic Energy Agency (IAEA). Across issue areas and policy domains, states increasingly turned to IOs. Between 1945 and the end of the Cold War, the number of treaty-based-IOs more than tripled, growing from 66 to 313 in a little more than four decades.[3] The US desire to institutionalize its leadership position, the rise of shared global norms, and the increased number of countries in the global system all likely contributed to this trend.[4]

The post-Cold War period heralded another shift, this time in how states designed new global governance bodies. Formal, treaty-based commitments were poorly suited to address more specialized challenges like combating money laundering, intelligence cooperation after terrorist attacks, and private security during armed conflict. Modern threats required more technocratic and flexible approaches, often with a smaller group of likeminded countries. While legally binding treaties provided stability and policy reassurance, they also took years to negotiate and involved varied coalitions. States turned to creating task forces, clubs, networks, and forums; informal IOs surged as formal IOs stagnated. Today, there are nearly 150 informal IOs—more than double the number at the end of the Cold War.[5]

Informal global governance is one of the defining features of the 21st century. Such organizations have no legal status, often a small or non-existent secretariat, and fewer members than formal IOs, yet they make decisions with wide-ranging repercussions for states. Informal forums like the G7 and G20 allow states to cooperate and coordinate policy while protecting autonomy. They are also remarkably durable, as states adapt or expand IO missions to address new challenges or increase their authority over time. The Financial Action Task Force (FATF) began in 1989 as a G7 initiative to coordinate anti-money laundering policy, but today the FATF has 39 members, a vast network of associate countries, and designs standards that cover additional topics like combating the financing of terrorism and proliferation.[6]

Yet while countries turn to informal IOs to address new challenges, the post-war institutional order continues to be the foundation for cooperation. Formal and informal IOs sit alongside each other, coordinating and competing over policy space. These "regime complexes" of multiple IOs that work on a single issue can reinforce each other's actions, as has occurred in the global counter-terrorism arena. States have inserted FATF recommendations on combating terrorist financing into UN Security Council resolutions, lending additional legal clout to "soft law" standards.[7] They may also compete with each other, challenging established rules or international law.[8] As institutions proliferate, the effects of a single IO on policy outcomes become challenging to disentangle from larger patterns of global governance.

Comparative Analysis of Cases

The five case studies in this report reflect many of the historical trends described above. Treaty-based organizations like International Civil Aviation Organization (ICAO), CERN, and the IAEA were established in the two decades immediately following WWII, when states viewed multilateral solutions as integral to preventing the outbreak of another war. Indeed, even CERN, an IO centered around research and scientific collaboration, was also intended to foster cooperation between people recently in conflict. Later cooperative efforts were more varied and encountered different geopolitical challenges. The Intergovernmental Panel on Climate Change (IPCC) was an outgrowth of a formal IO, the United Nations, and has worked to achieve scientific consensus around climate change to support the creation of new legally binding climate change treaties. Yet such efforts have proceeded in fits and starts, as formalized cooperation appears increasingly difficult to achieve in the post-Cold War era. Meanwhile, financial governance has expanded significantly over the last fifty years, yet all the while relying on informal IOs staffed with government bureaucrats.

How can we make sense of such varied institutions with quite different origin stories? Renowned political scientist Robert Keohane theorizes that states create IOs to serve three kinds of purposes: facilitating the flow of information, intensifying the consequences of rule breaking, and lowering the costs of cooperation.[9] This theoretical framework sheds light on the achievements and challenges of each global governance example.

Improving Information

All IOs exist in part to facilitate the flow of information across states. One common way that information promotes cooperation is when IOs work to build consensus around problem definitions. When states have varied threat perceptions, this task is crucial: how can states work together to solve a problem if they fail to understand it in the same way? IOs can help states define the nature of a challenge, which is often a necessary first step before moving forward with a solution.

In this report, nearly all IOs take on this problem-definition role, but none as important as the IPCC. When scientists and policymakers convened in Toronto, Canada in 1988 to call for the establishment of an intergovernmental panel on climate change, there was significant uncertainty about the process surrounding global warming, including its attribution to human activities. Each consecutive IPCC report enhanced intergovernmental consensus on the nature of risk. Because IPCC reports are made public, they also promoted a shared understanding of problems and risks across citizens and private actors.

In addition to defining problems, IOs can help coordinate state expectations around acceptable behavior and best practices. ICAO was explicitly established for this standard-setting purpose: countries needed to develop a single set of expectations around topics like airspace sovereignty, overfly rules, and air navigation. States also anticipated the challenges of differing approaches to airline safety, and the concomitant need to set clear guidelines. Given its influence on industry, ICAO consults heavily with private sector experts when formulating standards, but member states approve the final decisions.

Financial governance institutions are also oriented primarily around improving information, in this case through adaptable standard setting and monitoring. The advantages of such an approach can be seen through the lens of crisis response. The 2008 financial crisis led G20 states to pay renewed attention to topics like financial risk management. In the wake of the crisis, the G20 created the Financial Stability Board and tasked existing IOs with core tasks related to enhancing sound regulation in the financial sector and promoting integrity in financial markets.[10] Financial governance institutions were able to respond quickly to this request. Because the Basel Committee's standards are not tied to a specific treaty, finance ministers were able to integrate new information and update the accords, publishing Basel III in 2011. FATF similarly updated standards and intensified its monitoring of state compliance with its standards. FATF's approach, wherein it regularly updates its recommendations and conducts in-depth, peer evaluations of member state policy, is emblematic of the advantages of informal IOs. Without the force of international law, states are more willing to revise standards and subject themselves to intensive monitoring.

Finally, of all the case studies included in this report, the IAEA has perhaps the most important informational role of all: monitoring civilian nuclear programs in an effort to detect diversions for weapons purposes. The IAEA's safeguards regime is one of the most intrusive monitoring regimes in international politics, and it is a product of both its time and the alignment of geopolitical interests on this particular issue. When the IAEA was created in 1957, and when its role shifted to mandatory safeguards with the entry into force of the Nuclear Non-Proliferation Treaty in 1970, treaty-based cooperation was the norm and on this rare issue, US and Soviet interests aligned. Moreover, non-nuclear states were told that to gain access to these technologies, they had to submit to the IAEA's procedures, including nuclear material accountancy, on-side inspections, remote video monitoring, and sample analysis. The IAEA's monitoring powers are thus intrinsically tied to the context of this issue: states agreed to a strong, legally binding monitoring regime because they gained access to technologies that otherwise would be unavailable.

Organizing an IO around information provision involves making tradeoffs between different goals. If states are interested in generating a shared understanding of a threat, then broad participation across both governments and non-state actors will add legitimacy to the effort and make the final outcome more impactful. But this type of widespread informational gathering effort may also slow progress on policy action, as it allows countries to deflect cooperation by saying they are waiting for a final consensus. Informal standards, on the other hand, can be established in a timelier fashion, and may incentivize quicker policy action through monitoring. Yet this approach often works best with smaller groups of likeminded states and so policymakers will have to work harder to achieve global legitimacy. Additionally, if states anticipate that countries may be unwilling to follow global standards, a robust and widespread monitoring apparatus will be essential to policy impact.

Intensifying the Consequences of Rule Breaking

A second objective of institutionalized cooperation is to intensify the consequences for rule breakers. International politics has no overarching authority or global policeman, yet the existence of IOs makes it more costly for countries to break agreements or violate established norms. States incur varying degrees of reputation damage for failing to follow through on their commitments,

but regardless of context, most countries do not want their bad behavior to be publicized. As a result, IO monitoring reports that highlight non-compliance can be a powerful way of incentivizing behavior change.

Both the financial governance institutions and ICAO lean into these reputational mechanisms. Such governance models are built around the assumption that states prefer to have positive reputations in these arenas and will therefore work to modify their behavior to avoid bad publicity. In the case of financial governance, governments want to attract private capital and cross-border investments, and therefore strong financial incentives exist to maintain a positive reputation. In the case of ICAO, governments could face reputational fallout from both citizens and industry if they fall far below international standards.

Reputational mechanisms may reach into the realm of outside enforcement. While most IOs lack formal enforcement powers, states sometimes step in to punish other countries that fail to follow the rules. The ICAO case study provides such an example. The United States and European Union have audit systems based on ICAO standards and may restrict air travel to their jurisdictions if countries receive poor ratings. Given the size of these economies, such ramifications can be extremely costly for a country's airline industry.

FATF takes this outside enforcement a step farther. Since 2010, the organization has maintained "black" and "grey" lists of countries that are failing to comply with FATF standards. This list is publicized in triannual announcements, and although it is officially not coercive, it has market repercussions. Banks in other countries typically subject clients from listed countries to higher costs and transaction delays, and thus impose direct penalties on the banking sector in listed countries. This market enforcement process has been extremely effective in incentivizing countries to improve their compliance with FATF standards.[11]

Unsurprisingly given the importance of its mandate, the IAEA has the strongest incentive structure to encourage states to follow international rules. If IAEA inspectors detect non-compliance with nuclear safeguards, the IAEA can report a state to the UN Security Council. In February 1993, for example, the IAEA Director General referred North Korea to the UN Security Council after it failed to grant that IAEA permission for a special inspection.[12] The Security Council then called upon North Korea to comply with the agreement but refrained from undertaking any significant punitive action until establishing sanctions in 1996.

In cases where some states are likely to ignore international standards or take actions that undermine global cooperation, an IO's ability to create consequences for rule breaking is essential to institutional success. But the optimal system for incentivizing behavior is likely to vary. Reputation can be a powerful mechanism when states share similar priorities, but it may fall short if interests significantly diverge. Outsourcing enforcement to other actors, whether they be states or markets, can be powerful, but it assumes that these actors have clear incentives to punish non-compliant behavior. Finally, creating a strong legal enforcement regime as exists in the IAEA example may be strong deterrent, but it is unlikely to override core security concerns, particularly when punishment requires widespread agreement among states.

Lowering the Costs of Cooperation

Finally, IOs may also be designed to lower the costs of ongoing cooperation. Many cooperation problems require ongoing engagement from states. The creation of an IO, particularly one that maintains regularly scheduled meetings where countries are represented by the same delegates year after year, allows countries to engage with each other in a more efficient manner. Even when the full membership of an IO meets less frequently, IOs typically have subsidiary bodies like ICAO's 36-member Council that are tasked with the more technical aspects of cooperation and adopt procedures for routine meetings and discussions.

Formal IOs may have secretariats that facilitate such processes, providing even basic services like the UN's Blue Book where diplomats can easily find the contact information for their counterparts in other countries. Secretariats may also house experts with specialized knowledge. The IAEA, for example, not only monitors safeguards but also assists developing countries with nuclear technology. Its technical cooperation program provides transfer assistance, helps states identify energy needs, and assist with radiation and nuclear safety. Such ongoing assistance is an important part of the nuclear bargain whereby states are willing to submit to intrusive monitoring.

Lowering the costs of research and scientific collaboration are also common benefits of IOs. CERN has been quite effective in this regard. The existence of a shared space where scientists can converge to focus on a narrow set of topics has undoubtedly led to great leaps forward, and the facility has become a focal point for physicists from all over the world. The IPCC has also ensured ongoing cross-country scientific exchange, both by convening IPCC panels and also through the rigorous review of new research that goes into its lengthy reports.

Among informal IOs, ongoing cooperation is typically facilitated through transnational networks of bureaucrats.[13] Financial governance institutions like the Basel Committee are staffed with regulators (typically central bankers and finance officials); FATF meetings are attended by finance officials, central bankers, foreign affairs, and sometimes law enforcement officials. In FATF's case, these bureaucrats are also directly involved in evaluating the policies of peer countries. The meetings and monitoring processes build relationships and make it easier for these officials to engage with each other on relevant policies.

Each IO promotes ongoing cooperation in different ways, and as a result, each approach has its own strengths and weaknesses. Concentrating knowledge in a secretariat can build expertise and provide direct points of contact for states seeking technical assistance, yet over time, IO bureaucrats may increasingly expand their authority and operate in ways unanticipated by states.[14] Scientific and research collaboration may promote great leaps forward in understanding and knowledge, yet states have no obligation to integrate such advances into their decision-making or to act in response to such developments. Finally, bureaucratic networks intensify policy investment in participating states, yet they may operate like clubs that concentrate knowledge in the hands of developed countries and exclude developing economies.

Lessons for AI Governance

Understanding the history, politics, and operations of existing global governance regimes illuminates five core lessons for AI. First, and most essential, any conversations around IO creation

must start first with establishing clear objectives. A new IO for AI could create shared expectations around AI risks and develop clear conceptualizations of safety and security, or it could be more action-oriented, focused on standard setting and incentivizing state cooperation. Each approach would necessitate different design choices in terms of membership, governance, and operations. Governments must start by asking themselves: what is the most urgent cooperation problem? If states do not agree that AI poses significant risks and need to build out baseline knowledge before taking additional steps, then perhaps the IPCC model is best. If risks are clear but can be circumvented by establishing best practices, then a standard setting model like Basel might work. Finally, if some risks are clear but states anticipate an unwillingness of some parties to follow established standards, an approach that involves standard setting and outsourced enforcement, such as with FATF or ICAO, might be the best next step.

Second, political leadership will be paramount to achieving any action in a timely fashion. Stronger IOs require more engagement from politically powerful actors. The policy success of bodies like the IAEA, ICAO, and the FATF is directly linked to support from countries like the United States. The rapid pace of AI developments means that countries need to act quickly, and rapid policy response is most possible when powerful countries are at the forefront of policy action. Notably, leadership on AI governance also has significant strategic advantages, as first movers will have more influence. It is easier to shape incipient norms than to disrupt established ones. Any early IOs in this area will have prolonged effects on the evolution of global governance.

Third, early governance endeavors set the tone for future cooperation, but they are not final products. Most IOs deepen their authority and expand their mandates across time. Even formal IOs like the IAEA have adopted new agreements to address gaps in monitoring and enforcement, and in the IAEA's case, it has also expanded its governance to nuclear safety and security. Mandate expansion is particularly common in informal IOs like Basel and FATF. States should not aim to create a full cooperative agreement regulating all aspects of AI, particularly given the rapidly changing nature of the threat. Instead, incremental cooperation may be the best path forward. Focusing on topics with broad geopolitical consensus, such as preventing the use of AI for the creation of biological weapons, may be one path forward; policymakers may want to delay negotiations on more controversial subjects, such as AI and military technology.

Even amid disagreement about core principles, common ground is still possible if cooperation is oriented around practical applications. Cooperation to combat terrorism is a notable such example. Countries have negotiated 13 international conventions and protocols related to preventing specific types of terrorism, yet no consensus definition exists around the term "terrorism" itself. Indeed, after 9/11, the United Nations Security Council adopted a far-reaching resolution requiring states to take legislative action on terrorism without actually ever specifying the definition of the term. In contrast to the Council's quick response, countries have been negotiating a comprehensive terrorism convention for more than 20 years through the General Assembly and have yet to reach consensus. If member states had waited for a shared definition of "terrorism," policy action would have been significantly delayed.

Fourth, formal legal authority does not equate to strong policy impact, just as informal status does not mean an IO is ineffectual. States have increasingly turned to informal governance in recent years because it is adaptable and effective in many policy domains. The financial governance

institutions in this report have had significant impacts on regulatory policy and the day-to-day practices of global banks. In the FATF case, the organization has diffused its recommendations across 200 economies, despite lacking any legal status. And while this report highlights informal IOs in the financial space, this mode of cooperation is most common in the security realm.[15]

The distinction between formal and informal IOs also does not equate to enforcement. An IO may officially have a strong legal enforcement regime but the existence of such a mechanism does not mean that states are willing to use it. The UN Security Council has the ability to authorize the use of force – the strongest possible enforcement of international law that exists in international politics – yet the Council rarely deploys this punishment, even amid significant rule violations. In contrast, both FATF and ICAO have relied on external actors like the private sector and individual governments to enforce compliance with their standards.

Finally, any new cooperative efforts on AI will need to be integrated into the existing global governance infrastructure. More than 400 formal and informal IOs exist today. Within each issue area, a host of different IOs coordinate and compete over policy influence. Even through AI is a new issue area, new IOs will bump up against other policy domains. AI global governance could touch on security, development, climate change, and human rights. Strategic policymakers may be able to leverage the existence of longstanding institutions to reinforce AI governance efforts, using bodies like the Security Council and the General Assembly to endorse new standards. But to the extent AI governance touches on other policy domains, governments should anticipate calls for inclusion and potential pushback from existing IOs and relevant actors.

Conclusion

The world stands at a pivotal moment when it comes to AI. This technology will transform modern society in a myriad of ways, and policymakers have a unique opportunity to shape this transformation. Global governance initiatives are already in incipient stages; now is the time to make crucial decisions about core objectives. IOs are designed to solve specific cooperation problems, and therefore all institutional design proposals should be contingent upon first identifying top priorities. Importantly, global governance can proceed on several fronts at once. It is possible to create one body to assess overall risks, another to set standards and address core security threats, and still another to promote technology transfer. Yet the most urgent priorities are to identify common objectives with likeminded partners and begin to build out a multilateral framework. What starts as a small AI agreement may rapidly expand to become a core feature of 21st century global governance.

[1] David Brazier, "The Atlantic Charter: Revitalizing the Spirit of the Founding United Nations Over Seventy Years Past," *United Nations Chronicle*, retrieved from: https://www.un.org/en/chronicle/article/atlantic-charter-revitalizing-spirit-founding-united-nations-over-seventy-years-past, accessed on 9 November 2023.
[2] Notably, Roosevelt also understood the need for domestic political buy in. To build up political support for this new institution, he brought both administration and elected officials in negotiations, and sought to ensure Congress was supportive throughout the endeavor. For more on this point, see:
"The United States and the Founding of the United Nations, August 1941 – October 1945," *Office of the Historian, Bureau of Public Affairs, US Department of State,* retrieved from: https://2001-2009.state.gov/r/pa/ho/pubs/fs/55407.htm, accessed on 9 November 2023.
[3] IO numbers drawn from Jon C.W. Pevehouse, Timothy Nordstron, Roseanne W McManus, Anne Spencer Jamison. 2020. "Tracking Organizations in the World: The Correlates of War IGO Version 3.0 datasets." *Journal of Peace Research*: 57(3).
[4] For a discussion of US leadership and Western commitment to a rule-based order, see G. John Ikenberry. 2019. *After Victory: Institutions, Strategic Restraint, & The Rebuilding of Order After Major Wars (New Edition).* Princeton: Princeton University Press, and G. John Ikenberry. 2009. "Liberal Internationalism 3.0: America and the Dilemmas of Liberal World." *Perspectives of Politics* 7(1): 71-87. On the rise of global norms, see Michael Barnett and Martha Finnemore. 2004. *Rules for the World: International Organizations and Global Politics,* New York: Cornell University Press. On the link between the number of countries and the number of IOs, see Pevehouse, Nordstrom, McManus, and Jamison (2020).
[5] Informal IO numbers drawn from Felicity Vabulas and Duncan Snidal. 2021. "Cooperation under autonomy: Building and analysing the Informal Intergovernmental Organizations 2.0." *Journal of Peace Research* 54(4): 859-869.
[6] Julia C. Morse. 2022. *The Bankers' Blacklist: Unofficial Market Enforcement and the Global Fight Against Illicit Financing.* New York: Cornell University Press.
[7] See Tyler Pratt. 2018. "Deference and Hierarchy in International Regime Complexes." *International Organization* 72(3): 561-590 for work on patterns of institutional deference within regime complexes.
[8] Julia C. Morse and Robert O. Keohane. 2014. "Contested Multilateralism." *The Review of International Organizations* 9: 385-412.
[9] In Keohane's book *After Hegemony*, he describes these three advantages as reducing information asymmetries, establishing legal liability, and reducing transaction costs. I have modified these terms to make them more accessible to a general audience. For a more detailed description, see Robert O. Keohane. 1984. *After Hegemony.* Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
[10] http://www.g20.utoronto.ca/2008/2008declaration1115.html
[11] Morse 2022.
[12] https://www.iaea.org/newscenter/focus/dprk/fact-sheet-on-dprk-nuclear-safeguards
[13] Anne Marie Slaughter. 2005. *A New World Order*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
[14] Barnett and Finnemore 2004.
[15] Vabulas and Snidal 2021.